

STAGES OF DEVELOPMENT

1 INFANCY

The infancy stage of development is the period immediately following birth, typically considered the first year of life, characterized by rapid physical growth, significant cognitive development, and the acquisition of basic motor skills like sitting, crawling and standing while heavily relying on caregivers to meet the needs and establishing crucial social bonds through interactions and attachment formation. This phase is marked by milestones like smiling, babbling, and the emergence of basic understanding of the world through sensory experiences.

2 CHILDHOOD

The "childhood" stage of human development refers to the period following infancy, where children begin to explore their environment, develop independence, and learn new skills.

typically spanning from age 2 or 3 until the onset of adolescence (around 12 years old); it often includes sub-stages like early childhood and middle childhood depending on the model used.

3. ADOLESCENCE

Adolescence is the stage of human development that marks the transition between childhood and adulthood, characterized by significant physical, cognitive, social, and emotional changes, typically occurring between the onset of puberty and the mid-20s, encompassing a period of rapid growth and identity formation; often considered to be the "teenage years" where individuals explore their ~~own status~~^{independence} and establish their own values and beliefs.

4. ADULTHOOD

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4. ADULTHOOD

Adulthood is the stage of human development when a person is fully physically and mentally mature. It is also when people take on more responsibilities and independence.

This adulthood is divided into

Early Stage

The early adulthood stage of human development refers to the period of life typically between the ages of 18 and 29, characterized by significant life events like finishing education, starting a career, forming intimate relationships, and exploring one's identity, often marked by a sense of instability and self-focus as individuals transition from adolescence to full adulthood. Sometimes called "emerging adulthood".

Middle Stage

Middle adulthood is a stage of human development generally considered to span

from around ages 40 to 65; where individuals experience noticeable physical changes associated with aging, often focusing on career achievements, family relationships, and finding meaning in life, while also dealing with potential challenges like "empty nest" or midlife crisis.

~~late adulthood~~ Late Stage

"Late Adulthood" refers to the final stage of human development, typically beginning around age 65 and lasting until death, characterized by physical decline, cognitive changes, and a focus on reflecting on one's life, often marked by the psychological conflict of integrity vs. despair according to Erik Erikson's theory.

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IMPORTANCE OF COGNITIVE DEVELOPMENT

• EARLY BRAIN DEVELOPMENT

The first few years of life are critical for cognitive development as the brain rapidly develops, making early experiences crucial for building essential skills like language comprehension and object permanence.

• FOUNDATION FOR LEARNING

Strong cognitive development acts as a foundation for future academic success, enabling children to effectively acquire knowledge and adapt to new learning environments.

• ESSENTIAL LIFE SKILLS

Cognitive abilities like problem-solving, reasoning, decision-making, and critical thinking are vital for navigating daily life challenges and making informed choices.

• SOCIAL INTERACTION

Cognitive development also supports social skills as children learn to understand others' perspectives and communicate effectively.

• IMPACT ON FUTURE POTENTIAL

Early cognitive development is a significant predictor of future achievements in education and career paths.

Examples of Cognitive Skills developed in early childhood

• Language acquisition

• Object permanence,

• Numeracy,

• Attention span,

• Memory, and problem solving

PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT

Personality development analysis is a systematic way to understand and measure how a person's personality changes.

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Other time. It can involve behavioral assessments, interviews and other methods.

METHODS OF PERSONALITY ASSESSMENTS

1 SELF-REPORT ASSESSMENTS

Self-reports are one of the most widely used formats for psychometric testing. They are as they are as they sound: reports or questionnaires that a client or employee completes themselves (and often scores themselves).

Self-report measures can come in many formats. The most common are Likert scales where individuals are asked to rate numerically (from 1 to 7 for example) the extent to which they feel that each question describes their thoughts, feeling, or behaviors.

These types of assessments are popular because they are easy to distribute and complete, they are often cost effective, and they can provide helpful insights into behavior. Self-reports can be ^{completed in both} personal and professional settings and can be particularly helpful in a coaching practice. For example:

However, they also have downsides to be wary of, including an increase in unconscious biases such as the social desirability bias (i.e., the desire to answer "correctly"). They can also be prone to individuals not paying attention, not answering truthfully, or not fully understanding the questions asked.

However, if you are a professional working with clients in any capacity, it is advised to first try out any self-report measure before suggesting them to clients. In this way, you can gauge for yourself and usefulness and validity of the measure.

2 BEHAVIORAL OBSERVATION

Another useful method of personality assessment is behavioral observation. This method entails someone observing and documenting a person's behavior.

While this method is more resource heavy in terms of time and requires observers (preferably one who is experienced and qualified

in observing and coding the behavior). It can be useful as a complementary method employed alongside self-reports because it can provide an external corroboration of behavior.

Alternatively, behavioral observation can fail to corroborate self-report scores, raising the question of how reliably an individual has answered their self-report.

3 INTERVIEWS

Interviews are used widely from clinical settings to workplaces to determine an individual's personality. Even a job interview is a test of behavioral patterns and experiences (i.e. personality). During such interviews, the primary aim is to gather as much information as possible by using probing questions. Responses should be recorded, and there should be a standardized scoring system to determine the outcome of the interview (for example, whether the candidate is suitable for role).

While interviews can elicit rich data about a client or employee, they are also subject to the unconscious biases of the interviewers and can be open to interpretation if there is no method for scoring or evaluating the interviewee.

4 PROJECTIVE TESTS

These types of tests are unusual in that they present individuals with an abstract or vague object, task, or activity and require them to describe what they see. The idea here is that the unfiltered interpretation can provide insight into the person's psychology and way of thinking.

A well-known example of a projective test is the Rorschach inkblot test. However, there are limitations to projective tests due to their interpretative nature and the lack of a consistent or quantifiable way of coding or scoring individuals' responses.

PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT THEORIES

• PSYCHOANALYTIC

Psychoanalytic theory of personality, primarily developed by Sigmund Freud, suggests that our personality is shaped by

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unconscious mental processes, particularly stemming from childhood experiences, and is also comprised of three key components: the id (primitive desires), the ego (reality-based decision making), and the superego (moral conscience), which constantly interact to influence our behavior. Essentially, our personality is a result of the dynamic interplay between these forces, often navigating conflicts between our basic instincts and societal expectations.

2 HUMANISTIC

The humanistic theory of personality posits that humans are inherently good and have an innate drive to become the best versions of themselves, striving towards "self-actualization" by fulfilling their potential, with a focus on free will and positive personal growth, rather than negative aspects of human nature; key figures in this theory are Abraham Maslow, known for his "Hierarchy of needs" and Carl Rogers, who emphasized the concept of "unconditional positive regard".

3 TRAIT PERSPECTIVE

The "trait perspective" in personality psychology refers to a theory that views personality as a collection of stable, enduring traits that characterize an individual's behavior across different situations, meaning people can be understood by identifying and measuring the strength of various traits like extraversion, agreeableness, or conscientiousness, which differentiate them from others; essentially, it focuses on describing personality by identifying the traits that make up a person, rather than exploring the underlying causes of those traits.

4 BEHAVIORIST

The behaviorist perspective on personality theory argues that a person's personality is primarily shaped by their environment and learned behaviors through conditioning, meaning that our actions are largely a result of

HEREDITY

Past experiences and the consequences they brought, with little emphasis on internal thoughts or feelings. Essentially, people learn to behave in certain ways based on reward and punishments they receive from their surroundings and this forms the basis of their personality.

PERSONALITY TRAITS / MODELS

The big five personality traits are

1. EXTRAVERSION

Extraversion is a personality trait that describes someone who is outgoing, sociable, and energized by being around others. Extroverts are often described as "people-persons".

An extrovert is sociable, energetic, positive and active.

Swiss psychoanalyst Carl Jung first used the term "Extrovert".

In 1921, he believed that extroverts are more concerned with external stimuli than internal stimuli.

2. AGREEABLENESS

Agreeableness is a personality trait that describes how well someone gets along with others. Agreeable people are people often seen as kind, considerate, and helpful. They tend to be more cooperative, empathetic and forgiving.

Agreeable people tend to have high-quality relationships and are well-liked. They are also more likely to be involved in community events and altruistic activities.

3. OPENNESS

Openness is a personality trait that describes a person's openness to new experiences, ideas, and solutions. It is also known as openness to experience. An open-minded person is curious, imaginative, creative and insightful. People who are less open tend to avoid changes, dislike disruption, focus on a few specific interests, are more traditional and may struggle with abstract thinking and prefer familiar routines to new experiences.

4 CONSCIENTIOUSNESS

Conscientiousness is a personality trait that describes someone who is responsible, careful and diligent. Conscientious people tend to be organized, efficient and self-disciplined.

A Self-Conscientious person takes their obligations to others seriously, making them responsible. They strive to do what's right and carry out their duties. They are goal-oriented which means they have the power to manage their thoughts, emotions or behavior in the face of temptation.

Conscientious people are high self-efficacy. They have complete confidence in their ability to reach their goals and be successful.

5 NEUROTICISM

Neuroticism is a personality trait that describes a person's tendency to experience negative emotions, such as anxiety, fear, anger and sadness. People who are high in neuroticism may also be more likely to experience stress, depression and low self-esteem. People with high neuroticism are

- Emotionally Instability: People with high neuroticism may have extreme mood swings and have difficulty regulating their emotions.

- Sensitivity to stress: This people also may have difficulty adjusting to change or returning to baseline after a stressful event.

- Self-Critical: This people may be more self-critical, doubtful, and worrisome.

- Negative Outlook: People with high neuroticism may have a general negative outlook on life.

PERSONALITY DEVELOPMENT ASSESSMENT (PDA)

A "Personality Development Assessment" in psychology refers to the process of systematically evaluating an individual's personality traits, characteristic and patterns of behavior to understand their unique psychological makeup. Often used to identify strengths, weakness, and areas for personal growth and can be applied in various settings, like clinical therapy, career counseling, or personal development initiatives. It typically involves using standardized tests.

questionnaires, or projective techniques to gather information about an individual's personality dimensions across different situations and over time.

- **SELF-REPORT INVENTORIES** - Individuals answer questions about their thoughts, feelings, and behaviors, providing a direct insight into personality.

- **PROJECTIVE TECHNIQUES** - Individuals interpret ambiguous stimuli (like inkblots or pictures) which are thought to reveal underlying sub-conscious motivations and conflict.

RATING SCALE - A standardized system where observers rate an individual's personality traits on a scale.

BEHAVIORAL OBSERVATION - Observing and individuals' behavior in a specific situation to ^{assess} personality trait.

INTERVIEWS - Structured or unstructured conversations where a professional asks questions to gather information about a person's personality.

SELF CONCEPT

Self-concept "refers to a person's perception of themselves encompassing their beliefs, attitudes, and feelings about their personal characteristics, abilities, values and social identities, essentially answering the question "who am I" by describing how they see themselves, it includes aspects like self-image and self-esteem or

Self-concept is the collection of beliefs and perceptions you have about yourself. It's your mental picture of who you are, including your personality, strengths, and weaknesses.

HOW DOES SELF-CONCEPT DEVELOP

Self-concept develops through a continuous process influenced by

EARLY FAMILY INTERACTION

The most significant influence on self-concept often comes from interactions with parents and caregivers ^{in early} childhood, where

Children learn about their worth and abilities based on feedback received.

- **SOCIAL COMPARISON:**

As a child grows, they start comparing themselves to peers, which shapes their self-perception in relation to others.

- **PERSONAL ACHIEVEMENTS**

Successful experiences and accomplishments contribute positively to self-concept, while failures can negatively impact it.

- **CULTURAL NORMS**

Societal expectations and cultural values play a role in shaping self-concept influencing what traits are considered desirable.

- **SELF REFLECTION:**

As people mature, they develop a greater ability to self-reflect and critically evaluate their own thoughts, behaviors, and ^{experiences} ~~feelings~~ which can lead to adjustments in their self-concept.

- COMPONENTS OF SELF-CONCEPT

- **SELF-IMAGE:**

Self-image is the mental picture or perception of oneself. It can include a person's body image, their personality, and their capabilities. Self-image can also be how you perceive yourself. It is a number of self-impressions that have built up over time. These self-images can be very positive, giving a person confidence in their thoughts and actions or negative, making a person doubtful of their capabilities and ideas.

IDEAL SELF

The ideal self is the person you want to be, and it's a part of your self-concept. It is made up of your values, hopes and dreams, and it can motivate you to improve yourself.

This ideal self is influenced by your life experiences, personal aspirations, and cultural standards. It's also influenced by societal expectations and what you've learned and experienced.

from others

SELF - ESTEEM

Self-esteem is how you feel about your value and worth, and your confidence in your abilities. It's a subjective feeling that can change over time. The characteristics of this

- High Self-esteem

Having a positive view of yourself, feeling confident, and having a sense of self-worth.

- Low Self-esteem

Having a hard time valuing yourself, and feeling unable to pursue your goals

- Inflated Self-esteem

Thinking you are better than others and always underestimating everything else

A healthy self-esteem can influence your motivation, mental well-being, and overall quality of life.

HOW DOES SELF-CONCEPT DEVELOP

A person develops their self-concept primarily through a combination of their experiences, interactions with others, particularly family and close friends and their interpretations of those experiences, which can be significantly shaped during childhood but continue to evolve throughout life. Essentially it's how they perceive and understand themselves based on their own reflections and feedback from the environment around them.

The factors contributing to self-concept development are

- EARLY CHILDHOOD EXPERIENCES

Interactions with parents, caregivers, and siblings play a major role in shaping a child's self-esteem and perception of their abilities.

- SOCIAL COMPARISONS

Comparing oneself to others, both consciously and unconsciously, can influence how someone views their own strengths and weaknesses.

FEEDBACK FROM OTHERS

Positive or negative feedback from peers, teachers and significant others can significantly impact self-concept.

PERSONAL ACHIEVEMENT AND FAILURE

Successfully completing tasks or overcoming challenges can contribute to a positive self-image while failures can negatively affect it.

CULTURAL INFLUENCES

Societal norms and expectations can shape how people perceive themselves within a particular group.

SELF-REFLECTION

Engaging in introspection and actively considering one's thoughts, feelings and behaviors can help to refine and develop a self-concept.

POINTS TO REMEMBER

Self-concept is not static. It can be changed and evolves over time as people experience new situations and develop new ^{perceptions} ~~experiences~~.

Positive self-concept is important because a healthy self-concept is associated with high self-esteem, better coping mechanisms, and increased resilience.

Negative self-concept can lead to low self-esteem, anxiety, and difficulty in achieving goals.

THEORIES OF SELF-CONCEPT

Theories of self-concept primarily focus on the idea that our self-concept is learned through social interactions. It is a collection of beliefs about ourselves, encompassing our perceptions of our abilities, values, and characteristics, which are shaped by our experiences and how others perceive us. The important theories of self-concept are:

WILLIAM JAMES "ME" AND "I"

This theory of self-concept, outlined in his book "The Principles of Psychology," distinguishes between the "me" and the "I." Where "me" represents the self as an object of experience (like your personal facts, beliefs, and possessions) and "I" refers to the self as

Subject experience (the conscious awareness that is experiencing and perceiving the world) essentially the "I" is the part of you that knows you are experiencing something while the "me" is the thing being experienced.

CARL ROGERS PERSON - CENTERED THEORY

According to Carl Rogers' theory, "Self-Concept" refers to a person's subjective perception of themselves, including their self-image, self-worth, and "ideal self" which is essentially how they want to be perceived and play a crucial role in shaping their personality and behavior. A positive self-concept leads to more optimistic outlook, while a negative one can lead to self-doubt and anxiety. The key points of this theory are the components of self-concept which are self-image, ideal self and self-esteem.

SELF DISCREPANCY THEORY (HIGGINS)

Self-discrepancy theory suggests that people experience negative emotions when there is a significant gap between how they perceive themselves (actual self) and how they ideally want to be (ideal self) or how they believe they "ought" to be (ought self) leading to discomfort and a motivation to reduce this discrepancy by aligning their behaviors with their desired self-image; essentially the larger the gap between these self-states, the more negative emotions a person will experience.

SELF - CATEGORIZATION THEORY (TURNER)

is a social psychology concept that explains how people perceive themselves as individuals or as members of a group, depending on the situation and how this perception influences their behavior, essentially suggesting that our self-concept can shift between a personal identity and a social identity based on the context and salient group membership.

SOCIALIZATION AND IT AGENTS

Socialization is the process by which people learn to think, feel, and act in ways that are considered appropriate for their society. It is a lifelong process that begins in infancy and continues into age.

HOW DOES SOCIALIZATION WORK

Observing Others

Children learn how to behave by observing and copying the actions of their caregivers and peers.

Taking On roles

Children play roles such as "dress up" or "mom" to learn how to interact with others.

Learning expectations

Children learn the expectation of society and how different roles interact.

Adapting to new expectations

People adjust to new roles and expectations as they move through different life stages.

AGENTS OF SOCIALIZATION

- FAMILY

Family is an agent of socialization because it teaches children how to interact with the world, and how to be part of a group. Family is often the most influential agent of socialization for children.

Families teach children values such as trust, love and togetherness, they also teach them norms such as how to use objects, how to relate to others, and how the world works. Families teach children beliefs such as religious practices and world views, families teach children routines and rituals that convey who they are as a group. They also teach them political beliefs through discussion and modeling.

- PEERS

A peer group is a social group with similar interests, age and

Social Statuses: Peer groups are important agents of socialization helping children learn how to form relationships and develop a sense of self.

Peer groups teach children norms and rules from their peers, such as how to take turns and play games. Children can explore their interests and form relationships without adult supervision. Peers can be a source of emotional support and companionship, and they can reinforce or punish behaviors and interactions.

The influence of peer groups typically peaks during adolescence. While peer groups can be positive influences, peer pressure can cause people to behave in ways they might not otherwise choose.

- RELIGION

Religion is an agent of socialization because it influences a person's values, beliefs, and behaviors and helps them learn how to be a good member of society.

Religion teaches people how to behave morally and be good members of society. Religion can help reinforce social unity and stability. It also promotes psychological and physical well-being. Religion can motivate people to work for positive social change. Religious institutions can mold social behavior through preaching and socialization.

Religion is a social institution because it includes beliefs and practices that serve the needs of society. It is also a cultural universal because it is found in all societies in one form or another.

- GOVERNMENT

A government acts as an agent of socialization by actively shaping citizens' political beliefs, values, and behaviors through policies, laws, public discourse, and civic education, essentially teaching people how to participate in the political system and what is considered acceptable political conduct within a society. This includes promoting national identity, patriotism, and understanding of rights and responsibilities as citizens. Government can socialize citizens through pledges of allegiance, national holidays, military service, political campaigns.

- School

A school acts as an agent of socialization by actively shaping a child's behaviors, values, and social skills through formal curriculum, classroom interactions, peer relationships and even subtle "hidden curriculum" messages, effectively preparing them to function within society beyond the family unit.

Schools can socialize students through learning to follow a schedule, by developing academic skills, by promoting patriotism and civic engagement and also gender socialization.

- Media

The media, including television, radio, and the internet, is an important agent of socialization. It can influence how people think about the world, their values, and their behaviors.

The media convey cultural values, societal norms, and behavioral expectations, the media can also reinforce stereotypes about gender, race, and other groups, the media can glorify risk-taking behaviors like smoking, binge drinking, and reckless driving. The media can also influence political views and political participation.

KEY THEORIES OF SOCIALIZATION

1. COOLEY'S LOOKING-GLASS SELF

As his primary concept related to socialization is called the "looking-glass self", which details how individuals develop their self-concept based on how they perceive others perceive them; this is the core concept where individuals imagine how they appear to others, then interpret how others judge that appearance, and finally develop their self-concept based on those perceived judgments. Cooley emphasized the significant role of primary groups like family and close friends in shaping the self through early interactions.

2. MEAD'S "I" AND "ME"

George Herbert Mead's theory of socialization, also known as "social behaviorism", states that a person's self-concept develops through social interactions, where individuals learn to

Perspective

See themselves from the ~~perspect~~ perspective of others by taking on different roles through play and games, ultimately forming their "Self" which is composed of the "I" (individual impulse) and the "Me" (social expectations)

This theory has three stages of development

- Preparatory Stage: imitation of significant others
- Play stage: taking ^{on} roles of specific people like "doctor" or "mom"
- Game stage: understanding complex social rules and the "generalized Other" (society's expectations)

3 FREUD'S PSYCHOANALYTIC THEORY

Sigmund Freud's psychoanalytic theory of personality states that personality is made up of three parts which are

The Id

The unconscious, impulsive part of the mind that seeks immediate gratification and also the source of basic drives like hunger, thirst, and sex

The Ego

The conscious part of the mind that deals with reality also tries to balance the Id's demands with Superego's morality

The Superego

This part of the mind that enforces morality and social norms uses guilt to discourage socially unacceptable behavior, these parts interact and conflict with each other to create

personality. Freud believed that mental health issues arise when the ego is unable to control the Id. He also believed that most human suffering is determined during childhood

development. Freud's theory of personality development included five stages: Oral, Anal, Phallic, Latency, Genital

^{his} theories are not widely used today because they are difficult to test scientifically

4 ERIKSON'S PSYCHOSOCIAL DEVELOPMENT

Erik Erikson's theory of psychosocial development proposes that human development occurs through a series of eight stages, each marked by a specific "psychosocial crisis" that individuals must navigate to successfully progress to the next stage, with each

Stage focusing on resolving a key conflict between opposing emotions or traits, impacting one's sense of self identity throughout life. Erikson's theory have eight stages

- Trust vs. Mistrust (birth to 1 year)
- Autonomy vs. Shame and Doubt (1-3 years)
- Initiative vs. Guilt (3-5 years)
- Industry vs. Inferiority (6-12 years)
- Identity vs. Role Confusion (Adolescence)
- Generativity vs. Stagnation (middle adulthood)
- Integrity vs. Despair (late adulthood)

PIAGET'S COGNITIVE DEVELOPMENT THEORY

Jean Piaget's theory of cognitive development proposes that children progress through distinct stages of intellectual development, with each stage building upon the previous one, where they actively construct their understanding of the world through interactions with their environment, marked by key concepts like assimilation and accommodation. The four stages are: Sensorimotor (birth to 2 years), Preoperational (2 to 7 years), Concrete operational (7 to 11 years), and Formal Operational (12 years and beyond).

5. BANDURA'S SOCIAL LEARNING THEORY

This theory proposes that people learn primarily through observation and modeling of others' behavior, meaning they can acquire new behaviors by watching and imitating others, with the key aspect being "vicarious reinforcement" where individuals learn by observing the consequences of others' actions, not just their own; this process is often referred to as observational learning.

6. KOHLBERG'S THEORY OF MORAL DEVELOPMENT

According to the Kohlberg's theory of moral development, individuals progress through six distinct stages of moral reasoning, categorized into three levels

- Pre-Conventional (Obedience and punishment orientation) Stage 1; actions are judged based on their direct consequences

With the focus on avoiding punishment, individuals at this stage see rules as absolute and external authority figures as the primary source of morality.

Stage 2: Instrumental Relativist Orientation (Pre-Conventional); morality is based on self-interest, where individuals act to gain personal rewards or favours in exchange for their behavior.

Stage 3: Good Boy/Nice Girl Orientation (Conventional) Individuals see approval from others and conform to societal expectations, defining "good" behavior as what pleases others.

Stage 4: Law and Order Orientation (Conventional) Emphasis is placed on maintaining social order and following rules, even if it means sacrificing personal desire.

Stage 5: Social Contract Orientation (Post-Conventional) Individuals recognize that laws can be flexible and consider the greater good of society when making moral decisions.

Stage 6: Universal Ethical Principle Orientation (Post-Conventional) morality is based on self-chosen ethical principles, with a focus on justice and human rights, even if it means breaking laws. With each stage representing a more complex level of moral understanding, people typically move through these stages in a fixed order, with the progression linked to cognitive development.

THE STATES OF DEVELOPMENT

The State of development refers to the current understanding of how individuals grow and change throughout their lifespan, encompassing physical, cognitive, emotional, and social development, with key areas of focus including different stages of development like infancy, childhood, adolescence, and adulthood. Often studied through theories like Piaget's Cognitive Development Stages and Erikson's Psychosocial Stage.

Infancy

In psychology "infancy" refers to the developmental stage from

to approximately One year Old, characterized by rapid physical growth, significant brain development, and the acquisition of basic motor skills, sensory perception, and initial social interaction, where infants primarily rely on caregivers to meet their needs and learn to trust through their interactions with the environment and primary caregivers.

ADOLESCENCE

Adolescence is a time of significant physical, cognitive, emotional, and social changes. These changes can be complex and vary from person to person.

Physical development

- puberty, which includes body changes like hair growth, completion of growth, development of sexual dimorphic body shape.

Cognitive development

Development of abstract thinking capacities, improvements in attention, memory, and processing speed; Development of metacognition or awareness of one's own thinking patterns.

Emotional development

Development of a clear sense of personal and sexual identity, increased emotional responsiveness, and mood swings and emotional outbursts.

Social development

Becoming more autonomous from parents, spending more time with peers, and exploring romantic relations and sexuality.

PUBERTY

Psychological changes during puberty include emotional turmoil, identity exploration, and sexual discovery.

Emotional Changes

- Heightened emotions: mood swings, emotional ~~outlets~~ ^{outbursts}, and family discord are common.

- Identity exploration: discovering gender identity and sexual orientation.

- Gender dysphoria: emotional distress when gender identity doesn't match body.

Social changes

Peer pressure: Social pressure from peers can cause emotional upheaval
New social group: Joining new peer groups can help with transitions to adulthood

Brain development

- Increased Complexity: The brain develops more folds in the cerebral cortex
- Synaptic pruning: Synapses are pruned
- Myelination: myelination occurs
- Other changes like
- Sexual thoughts and desires begin
- Sexual and romantic attractions to others begin
- Risk-taking behaviors may increase
- Lapses in judgment may occur

Parents can support healthy adolescent development by listening, giving their child attention, and encouraging them to try new ideas.

PERCEPTION

Perception is the organization, identification, and interpretation of sensory information in order to represent and understand the presented information or environment. Simply means how you use your senses to understand and interpret the world around you.

HOW DOES PERCEPTION WORK

Perception works by taking in sensory information from the environment through our senses, then converting that information into electrical signals that are sent to the brain where it is organized, interpreted, and assigned meaning, ~~also~~ ^{allowing} us to understand and interact with the world around us; essentially, it's the process of transforming raw sensory data into a conscious experience of our surroundings.

STAGES OF PERCEPTION

1 SELECTION

"Selection" is the initial stage of perception where an individual focuses their attention on specific sensory stimuli from their environment, essentially choosing which information to actively perceive and which to ignore, based on factors like personal needs, interest, and the salience of the stimuli present at the time. It's like filtering out most sensory input to concentrate on what is most relevant.

2 ORGANIZATION

Organization in the stages of perception refers to the process where the brain takes in sensory information and actively sorts, categorizes, and structures it into a meaningful pattern, essentially attempting to make sense of the stimuli by grouping similar elements together and forming a coherent whole, often relying on pre-existing mental frameworks and Gestalt principles like proximity, similarity, and closure.

3 INTERPRETATION

The interpretation stage of perception is the final step where an individual assigns meaning and understanding to sensory information they have received. Essentially "making sense" of what they are experiencing by drawing on their past experiences, cultural context, and personal beliefs to create a subjective interpretation of the stimuli. It's where we attach meaning to what we see, hear, feel, taste, or smell, and is heavily influenced by our individual cognitive frameworks and biases.

FACTORS INFLUENCING PERCEPTION

Factors that influence perception include:

- Past experience

Previous encounters shape how you interpret new information and situations.

- Motivation

Your desires and goals can influence what you focus on and how